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Syntax

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For other uses, see Syntax (disambiguation).

"Sentence structure" redirects here. For sentence structure in traditional grammar, see Sentence clause structure.

In linguistics, syntax (/ˈsɪntæks/ *SIN-taks*)[1][2] is the study of how words and morphemes combine to form larger units such as phrases and sentences. Central concerns of syntax include word order, grammatical relations, hierarchical sentence structure (constituency),[3] agreement, the nature of crosslinguistic variation, and the relationship between form and meaning (semantics). Diverse approaches, such as generative grammar and functional grammar, offer competing perspectives on syntax, reflecting its complexity and importance to understanding human language.

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Etymology [edit]

The word syntax comes from the ancient Greek word σύνταξις, meaning an ordinary or systematic arrangement, which consists of σύν- (syn-, "together" or "alike"), and τάξις (táxis, "arrangement"). In Hellenistic Greek, this specifically developed the sense referring to the grammatical order of words, as in modern literary analysis and linguistic theory.[4] The English term developed from Greek.[4]

Topics [edit]

The field of syntax contains a number of topics that are crosscutting, in the sense that the relevant literature for topics is treated differently in different theoretical traditions, or even simply that it is unclear how to distribute but instead to be derived from one another (i.e. word order can be seen as the result of movement rules derived from phrasal structure).

Sequencing of subject, verb, and object [edit]

"Subject and object" redirects here. For the philosophical terms, see Subject and object (philosophy).

One of the most fundamental things about syntax is the sequence in which the subject (S), verb (V), and object (O) usually appear in sentences. Over 85% of languages usually place the subject first, either in the sequence SVO or the sequence SOV. The other possible sequences are VSO, VOS, OVS, and OSV, the last three of which are rare. In most generative theories of syntax, the surface grammar of a sentence may be more complex clausal phrase structure, and each order may be derived from underlying structures. However, word order can also reflect transformations or function of the ordered elements.[5]

Grammatical relations [edit]

Another description of a language considers the set of possible grammatical relations in a language or in general and how they behave in relation to one another in the morphosyntactic alignment of the language. The description of grammatical relations can also reflect transitivity, passivization, and head-dependent-marking or other arguments in the sentence.[6] Examples of grammatical relations are subject, object, and various kinds of oblique. Theories of grammatical relations may have implications for how the subject is referred to from a relative clause or coreferential with an element in an infinite clause.[6]

Constituency [edit]

Constituency is the feature of being a constituent and how words can work together to form a constituent (or *phrase*). Constituents are the phrases that a sentence can be broken down into, and can be moved around, deleted, or substituted in transformations on the sentence as a unit. Recognizing constituents is important because constituents can be moved, as they must be for constituents, potentially of the same type.

Early history [edit]

As of July 2021, Pāṇini, from 4th century BC in Ancient India, is often cited as an example of a premodern work that approaches the sophistication of a modern syntactic theory since works on grammar had been written long before the modern era.[7]

In the West, the school of thought that can be known as "traditional grammar" began with the work of Dionysius Thrax.

For centuries, a framework known as *grammaire générale*, first expressed in 1660 by Antoine Arnauld and Claude Lancelot in a book of the same title, dominated work in syntax:[8] as its basic premise the assumption that language is a direct reflection of thought processes and so there is a single most natural way to express oneself.

However, in the 19th century, with the development of historical-comparative linguistics, linguists began to realize the diversity of human language and to question fundamental assumptions about the relationship between language and logic. It became apparent that there was no such thing as the most natural way to express a thought and so logic could no longer be relied upon as a basis for studying the structure of language. [citation needed]

The Port-Royal grammar modeled the study of syntax upon that of logic. (Indeed, large parts of Port-Royal Logic were copied or adapted from the Grammaire générale.[9]) Syntactic categories were identified with logical ones, and all sentences were analyzed in terms of "subject – copula – predicate". Initially, that view was adopted even by proponents of what became known as Franz Bopp's historical approach.

The central role of syntax within theoretical linguistics became clear only in the 20th century, which could metaphorically be called the "century of syntactic theory" as far as linguistics is concerned. (For a detailed and critical survey of the history of syntax in the last two centuries, see the monumental work by Giorgio Graffi (2001).[10]).

Theories [edit]

See also: Theory of language

There are a number of theoretical approaches to the discipline of syntax. One school of thought, founded in the works of Derek Bickerton,[11] sees syntax as a biological system. Analogously to the way in which other animal species, such as songbirds, show innate capacities to learn complex songs, Bickerton claims that syntactic competence is wired into the human brain. Other linguists, such as Geoffrey Sampson, maintain that linguistic competence is largely cultural but that people are innately disposed to learning culture in general. Sampson (2005) has argued that there is a complex interplay between culture and innate predispositions; for instance, while he accepts that a substantial part of syntax is innate, he sees a role for cultural learning in the acquisition of relatively superficial matters, such as the fact that in English one says *the red car* rather than *the car red*.[12] Other linguists working within functional linguistics, such as Tomasello (2003), have argued that syntactic competence is a matter of general cognitive ability, rather than an innate faculty.[13]

Syntacticians have attempted to explain the causes of word-order variation within individual languages and cross-linguistically. Much of this work has been done within the framework of generative grammar, which holds that syntax depends on a genetic endowment common to the human species. In that framework and in others, linguistic typology and universals have been primary explanatory focuses.[14]

Alternative explanations, such as those by functional linguists, have been put forward in language processing. It is suggested that the brain finds it easier to parse syntactic patterns that are either right- or left-branching but not mixed. The mixed-widely held approach is the performance–grammar correspondence hypothesis by John A. Hawkins, who suggests that language is a non-innate adaptation to innate cognitive mechanisms. Cross-linguistic tendencies are considered as being based on language users' preference for grammars that are organized efficiently and on their avoidance of word ambiguity.[15] Other explanations for word-order variation have been more semantic. However, exhibit regular inefficient patterning such as the VO languages Chinese, with the subpositional phrase before the verb, and Finnish, which has postpositions, but the main verb phrase before the verb. More recently, it is suggested that word-order variation may be explained by differences in how easily speakers can process grammars that are organized efficiently and on their avoidance of word ambiguity.[16] More recently, it is suggested that word-order variation may be explained by differences in how easily speakers can process grammars that are cross-linguistically related only to the place of rule-marking connectives (adpositions and subordinators), which links the phenomena with the semantic mapping of sentences.[16][17]

Theoretical syntactic models [edit]

Dependency grammar [edit]

Main article: Dependency grammar

Dependency grammar is an approach to sentence structure in which syntactic units are arranged according to the dependency relation, as opposed to the constituency relation of phrase structure grammars. Dependencies are directed links between words. The (finite) verb is seen as the root of all clause structure and all the other words in the clause are either directly or indirectly dependent on this root (i.e. the verb). Some prominent dependency-based theories of syntax are the following:

- Recursive categorial syntax, or algebraic syntax
- Functional generative description
- Meaning–text theory
- Operator grammar
- Word grammar

Lucien Tesnière (1893–1954) is widely seen as the father of modern dependency-based theories of syntax and grammar. He argued strongly against the binary division of the clause into subject and predicate that is associated with the grammars of his day (S → NP VP) and remains at the core of most phrase structure grammars. In place of that division, he positioned the verb as the root of all clause structure.[17]

Categorial grammar [edit]

Main article: Categorial grammar

Categorial grammar is an approach in which constituents combine as function and argument, according to combinatory possibilities specified in their syntactic categories. For example, other approaches might posit a rule that combines a noun phrase (NP) and a verb phrase (VP), but CG would posit a syntactic category NP and another NP\S, and the combination would be the result of applying (cancelling) the \S to an NP (the element on the left) and outputs a sentence (the element on the right).[18] Thus, the syntactic category for an intransitive verb is a complex formula that indicates that the verb requires an NP as an input and produces a sentence level structure as an output. The complex category is notated as (NP\S) instead of V. The category of transitive verb is defined as an element that requires two NPs (its subject and its direct object) to form a sentence. That is notated as (NP\S)/NP, which indicates that the verb combines with an NP on its right side and then combines with another NP on its left side to yield a sentence.[19]

Tree-adjoining grammar is a categorial grammar that adds in partial tree structures to the categories.

Stochastic/probabilistic grammars/network theories [edit]

Theoretical approaches to syntax that are based upon probability theory are known as stochastic grammars. One common implementation of such an approach makes use of a neural network or connectionism.

Functional grammars [edit]

Main article: Functional theories of grammar

Functionalist models of grammar study the form–function interaction by performing a structural and a functional analysis.

- Functional discourse grammar (Dik)
- Prague linguistic circle
- Role and reference grammar (RRG)
- Systemic functional grammar

Generative syntax [edit]

Generative syntax is the study of syntax within the overarching framework of generative grammar. Generative theories of syntax typically propose analyses of grammatical patterns using formal tools such as phrase structure grammars augmented with additional operations such as syntactic movement. The goal in analyzing a particular language is to specify a list of rules that generate all and only the expressions which are well-formed in that language. In doing so, they seek to identify innate domain-specific principles of linguistic cognition, in line with the wider goals of the generative enterprise. Generative syntax is among the approaches that pursue the ideal of the autonomy of syntax by assuming that meaning and function do not play significant roles in the description of syntax.

Generative syntax was proposed in the late 1950s by Noam Chomsky, building on earlier work by Zellig Harris, Louis Hjelmslev, and others. Since then, numerous theories have been put forward within the generative paradigm:

- Transformational grammar (TG) (Original theory of generative syntax laid by Chomsky in *Syntactic Structures* in 1957)[20]
- Government and binding theory (GB) (revised theory in the tradition of TG developed mainly by Chomsky in the 1970s and 1980s)[21]
- Minimalist program (MP) (a reworking of the theory out of the GB framework published by Chomsky in 1995)[22]

Other theories that find their origin in the generative paradigm are:

- Arc pair grammar
- Generalized phrase structure grammar (GPSG)
- Generative semantics
- Head-driven phrase structure grammar (HPSG)
- Lexical functional grammar (LFG)
- Nanosyntax
- Relational grammar (RG)
- Harmonic grammar (HG)

Cognitive and usage-based grammars [edit]

Main article: Cognitive Linguistics

The Cognitive Linguistics framework stems from generative grammar but adheres to evolutionary, rather than Chomskyan, Cognitive models often recognise the generative assumption that the object belongs to the verb phrase. Cognitive frameworks include the following:

- Cognitive grammar
- Construction grammar (CxG)
- Emergent grammar

See also [edit]

- Cartographic syntax
- Metasyntax
- Musical syntax
- Semiotics
- Syntactic category
- Syntax (academic journal)
- Syntax (programming languages)
- Syntax–Semantics Interface
- Usage

Syntactic terms [edit]

- List of syntactic phenomena
- Adjective
- Adjective phrase
- Adjunct
- Adpositional phrase
- Adverb
- Antecedent
- Appositive
- Argument
- Article
- Aspect
- Attributive adjective and predicative adjective
- Auxiliary verb
- Branching
- c-command
- Category
- Catena
- Clause
- Closed class word
- Comparative
- Complement
- Compound noun and adjective
- Conjugation
- Conjunction
- Constituent
- Coordination
- Crossover
- Dangling modifier
- Declension
- Dependency grammar
- Dependent marking
- Determiner
- Dual (form for two)
- Endocentric
- Finite verb
- Function word
- Gender
- Gerund
- Government
- Head
- Head marking
- Infinitive
- Inversion
- Lexical item
- Logical form (linguistics)
- m-command
- Measure word (classifier)
- Merge
- Modal particle
- Modal verb
- Modifier
- Mood
- Movement
- Movement paradox
- Nanosyntax
- Non-finite verb
- Noun
- Noun ellipsis
- Noun phrase
- Number
- Object
- Open class word
- Part of speech
- Particle
- Periphrasis
- Person
- Personal pronoun
- Phrasal verb
- Phrase
- Phrase structure grammar
- Plural
- Predicate
- Predicative expression
- Preposition and postposition
- Pronoun
- Grammatical relation
- Restrictiveness
- Right node raising
- Scrambling
- Selection
- Sentence
- Separable verb
- Singular
- Subcategorization
- Subject
- Subordination
- Superlative
- Tense
- Uninflected word
- V2 word order
- Valency
- Verb
- Verb phrase
- Voice
- Word order
- X-bar theory

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